

3D-SubG: A 3D Stacked Hybrid Processing Near/In-Memory Accelerator for Subgraph GNNs

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Abstract—Subgraph Graph Neural Networks (GNNs) are emerging as a promising approach to enhance GNN expressiveness, but their more complex graph structures with numerous independent and irregular subgraphs pose significant hardware deployment challenges. In this work, we propose 3D-SubG, a 3D stacked hybrid processing-near/in-memory accelerator for subgraph GNNs. With hybrid bonding packaging technology, a logic die is 3D stacked with a DRAM die for highly parallel memory accesses. The logic die employs digital SRAM-based processing-in-memory (PIM) macros to boost computation density and minimize data transfer. We further propose a bit-level non-zero gathering method to exploit graph sparsity for PIM, a workload-balanced mapping strategy for subgraph allocation onto different logic-to-DRAM blocks, and a distributed global pooling approach to reduce inter-block data movements. Experimental results show that 3D-SubG achieves average improvements of 146.11× in performance, 934.18× in area efficiency, and 1171.80× in energy efficiency compared to RTX 3090Ti.

Index Terms—Processing in Memory, Graph Neural Networks, Near-Memory Processing, 3D Stacked Architecture

I. INTRODUCTION

Graph Neural Networks (GNNs) have exhibited exceptional capabilities in handling graph-structured data across diverse domains, including graph mining [1], [2], recommendation systems [3], biology [4], chemistry [5], and so on. However, there is a growing consensus that traditional GNNs suffer from limited expressive power [6]–[9], constrained by the first-order Weisfeiler-Leman (1-WL) test [10], which is a common measure of GNN expressiveness. Studies indicate that GNNs equivalent to the 1-WL test fall short in capturing essential structural concepts, like motif counting (e.g., cycles, triangles) [9], [11], [12], which are proven to be pivotal in fields such as bioinformatics and chemoinformatics [13].

Recently, subgraph GNNs [9], [14]–[17], as illustrated in Fig. 1, are emerging to surpass the expressive power of traditional GNNs, approaching the level of 3-WL [9], [14], [18]. A general subgraph GNN operates in two phases: the subgraph phase, which confines computations to individual subgraphs, and the global phase, which processes all subgraphs. By decomposing a graph into multiple subgraphs processed by independent base GNNs, subgraph GNNs boost expressive power. However, they demand significantly higher hardware complexity due to the need to process numerous subgraphs

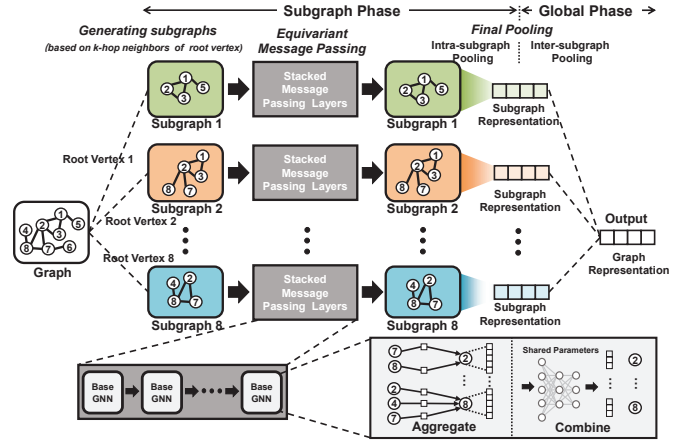


Fig. 1. An illustration of general subgraph GNN architecture.

with vertices often vastly exceeding the original graphs by orders of magnitude, as shown in Table II. It is worth noting that the same vertices shared among different subgraphs cannot reuse vertex feature vectors, because after message passing, the feature values of the same vertex differ across subgraphs.

Subgraph GNNs pose greater challenges for hardware deployment. Both CPUs and GPUs are inadequate for efficiently deploying GNN models [19]–[21], let alone the more complex subgraph GNNs. Existing GNN accelerators [19]–[22] are optimized for conventional GNNs. However, subgraph GNNs involve numerous independent subgraph operations performed by stacked base GNNs, requiring not only high computing power and memory bandwidth but also the ability to handle subgraph-level parallelism with irregular data accesses. The conventional GNN accelerators, optimized for single-graph processing, struggle with the parallel processing of subgraphs and the accompanying challenges, such as load balancing and massive uneven data movements.

To facilitate the efficient deployment of subgraph GNNs, we propose 3D-SubG, an accelerator that integrates 3D processing-near-memory (PNM) architecture with digital processing-in-memory (PIM) macros. The PNM architecture [23], [24] based on 3D hybrid bonding packaging technology achieves a tight coupling between DRAM and logic dies through numerous metal pillars. It boasts dense I/Os with a density about 110,000/mm² by around 3μm pitch [23], ensuring exceptionally high bandwidth communication be-

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tween the two dies. By deploying subgraph GNNs using the 3D PNM architecture, 3D-SubG not only benefits from extremely high off-chip bandwidth but also leverages the parallel processing capabilities of multiple distributed logic-to-DRAM (L2D) blocks. Each logic block can independently interact with its corresponding DRAM block to fully exploit the inherent parallelism of subgraphs. Furthermore, we employ PIM macros [25], [26] on the logic die to execute matrix multiplications (MMs) during the combination stage of base GNNs, enhancing the computation density and minimizing weight (W) movements. In addition, the aggregation in base GNNs, formulated as a substantial MM between an ultra-sparse adjacency matrix A and a comparatively sparse feature matrix X , is remarkably irregular and sparse. This makes it more suited for SIMD-based engines, which are designed to flexibly handle such aggregation stage and other vector operations. The contributions are summarized as follows:

- Through comprehensive analysis and profiling, we propose 3D-SubG, a 3D stacked hybrid processing near/in-memory accelerator tailored for subgraph GNNs.
- PIM macros with fixed and regular computation pattern can hardly exploit sparsity in base GNNs. Thus, we employ a Digital PIM (DPIM) macro featuring flexible dataflow and propose bit-level non-zero gathering technique to further leverage data sparsity.
- To efficiently manage the varied workloads of subgraphs, we propose a greedy-based subgraph mapping algorithm, which mitigates workload imbalances among L2D blocks during the subgraph phase.
- The final global pooling step involves aggregating information across all subgraphs, which can lead to extensive inter-block data movement. We introduce a distributed pooling approach, which reduces the substantial inter-block data transfers and alleviates inter-block load imbalance.
- We have implemented 3D-SubG using 22nm technology. In comparison to RTX 3090Ti GPU, 3D-SubG demonstrates an average performance improvement of $146.11\times$, an area efficiency improvement of $934.18\times$, and an energy efficiency improvement of $1171.80\times$.

II. BASIS OF SUBGRAPH GNNs

Fig. 1 illustrates the execution process of Subgraph Graph Neural Network (Subgraph GNN) models. After extracting the subgraphs from the initial graph based on the k -hop neighbors of the root vertices, the subgraph GNNs operate two phases: subgraph phase and global phase.

Subgraph phase comprises equivariant message-passing and intra-subgraph pooling. Stacked equivariant message-passing layers consist of base GNNs for subgraphs, which serve as the primary components in subgraph GNNs. The t -th iteration of the base GNN process within the k -hop subgraph G_v^k of vertex v can be expressed as follows:

$$h_v^t = \sigma^{(t)} \left(h_v^{(t-1)}, \sum_{w \in \mathcal{N}_{G_v^k}^1(v)} h_w^{(t-1)} \right) \quad (1)$$

TABLE I
NOTATIONS OF SUBGRAPH GNNs

Notation	Meaning	Notation	Meaning
$\mathbf{G}$	graph $\mathbf{G} = (\mathcal{V}, \mathcal{E})$	$\mathcal{V}$	vertices of $\mathbf{G}$
$\mathcal{N}_G^k(v)$	k -hop neighbors of v in G	v	vertex of $\mathbf{G}$
G_v^k	k -hop subgraph of v	$\mathcal{E}$	edges of $\mathbf{G}$
h_v	feature of vertex v	$h_{\mathbf{G}}$	representation of $\mathbf{G}$

TABLE II
DATA VOLUME OF ORIGINAL GRAPHS AND SUBGRAPHS.

Dataset	Num. Graphs	Sum Vertices	Num. Subgraphs	Sum Vertices (Subgraph)			
				1-hop	2-hop	3-hop	4-hop
MUTAG	188	3371	3371	10813	21669	33181	43385
BZR	405	14479	14479	45549	97819	164545	234879
ENZYMES	600	19578	19578	94144	193130	289884	375652
PROTEINS	1113	43471	43471	205559	435963	701931	979121

where $\sigma^{(t)}$ is an arbitrary continuous function, h_v^t is the feature of vertex v at t -th iteration and $\mathcal{N}_{G_v^k}^1(v)$ denotes the 1-hop neighbors of v in its k -hop subgraph. Intra-subgraph pooling involves pooling the vertex features within each subgraph to derive the corresponding subgraph representation.

Global phase generates the final graph representation through inter-subgraph pooling. Specifically, the pooling is executed across all subgraphs to combine their representations into the final graph representation. This process can be expressed as:

$$h_{\mathbf{G}} = P^G (\{h_{G_v^k} \mid v \in \mathbf{G}\}) \quad (2)$$

Here, P^G represents the graph pooling, $h_{G_v^k}$ is the subgraph representation and $h_{\mathbf{G}}$ is the final graph representation.

III. ARCHITECTURE AND MAPPING OF 3D-SUBG

A. Overview of 3D-SubG Hardware Architecture

The overall architecture of 3D-SubG is depicted in Fig. 2. It consists of a DRAM die featuring a 6×6 block configuration, with a logic die densely integrated beneath it using uniformly distributed copper metal pads at the bond interface. Similarly, the logic die is segmented into 6×6 blocks, constrained by packaging technology. Each logic block is required to be vertically aligned with its respective DRAM block, enabling direct high-bandwidth data exchanges within this logic-to-DRAM (L2D) block. Additionally, the logic blocks are interconnected through an on-chip 2D mesh network, facilitating efficient data communication among all L2D blocks.

A DPIM-based GNN engine is implemented on the logic die within a L2D block to deliver efficient parallel computing capabilities. Each GNN engine is equipped with eight DPIM macros, segmented into four combination lanes for MM operations required in GNN combination calculations. The combination calculations are characterized by their regular and static memory access patterns suitable for DPIM macros. The engine also includes SIMD cores for handling irregular and dynamic memory accesses in aggregation tasks and other vector computations, such as pooling. To harness the inherent

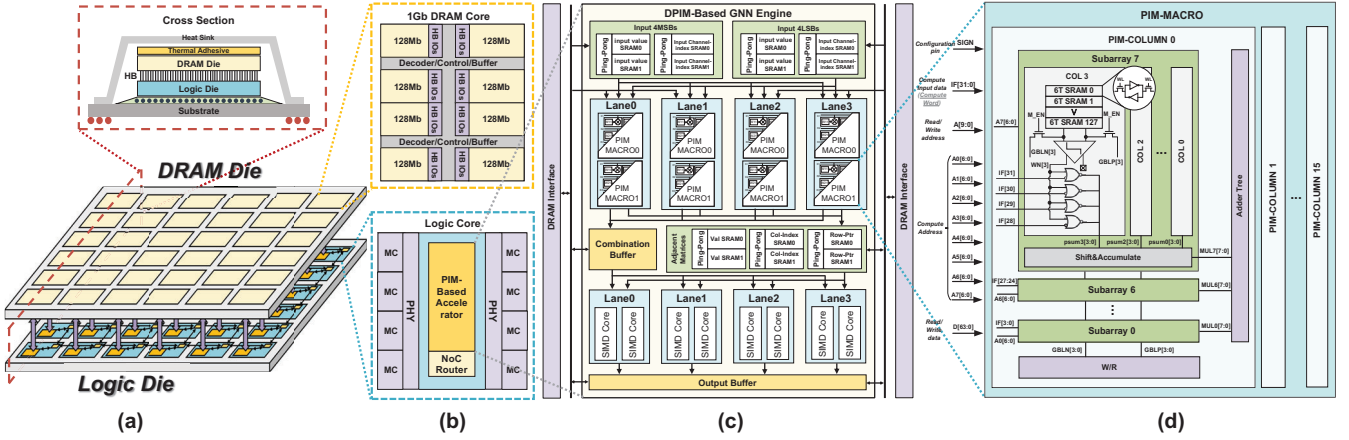


Fig. 2. An overview of the proposed 3D-SubG architecture: (a) the hybrid bonding PNM architecture, (b) a logic-to-DRAM block with a DRAM block and a logic block, (c) micro-architecture of DPIM-based GNN engine inside a logic block, and (d) the micro-architecture of DPIM.

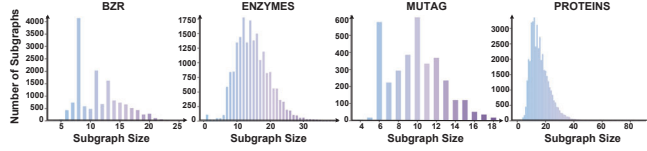


Fig. 3. The count of subgraphs (hop=3) of specific sizes across four datasets reveals an uneven distribution of subgraph sizes.

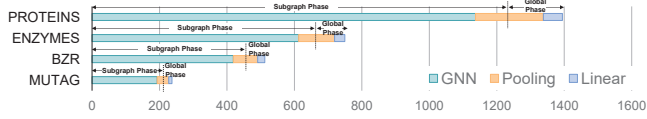


Fig. 4. Runtime breakdown of a subgraph GNN (NGNN) on four different datasets with over 95% attributed to base GNN and pooling.

sparsity of GNNs, a specialized channel-independent DPIM is used in conjunction with our bit-level non-zero (NZ) value gathering method depicted in Fig. 5. For aggregation, the Compressed Sparse Row (CSR) format is used for the adjacency matrix A with 4 flexible SIMD lanes performing sparse matrix multiplication to enhance efficiency in sparse data processing.

During the subgraph processing phase of subgraph GNN, workloads are distributed to L2D blocks at the granularity of subgraphs. This mapping strategy maximizes the parallel execution of subgraphs by leveraging the spatially distributed nature of L2D blocks. Specifically, the 6×6 array of L2D blocks enables concurrent processing of up to 36 subgraphs. Once the subgraph phase is completed, the central block collects the computational results from its neighboring blocks and proceeds to execute the final global pooling phase.

B. Sparse-Aware DPIM with Bit-Level Non-Zero Gathering

The primary operator of subgraph GNN is the base GNN, as depicted in Fig. 4. The input matrix X exhibits high sparsity, as evidenced in Table III. Traditional PIM macros, constrained by their rigid dataflow, often find it challenging to effectively

TABLE III
SPARSITY STATISTICS OF THE GNN PART IN NGNN [14]

Matrix	BZR	MUTAG	ENZYMES	PROTEINS
A	0.954	0.882	0.914	0.928
X	Element-wise	0.8562	0.4039	0.1906
	4 MSBs	0.8945	0.4696	0.2896
	4 LSBs	0.8739	0.5302	0.3241
W	0.103	0.0167	0.0653	0.0341

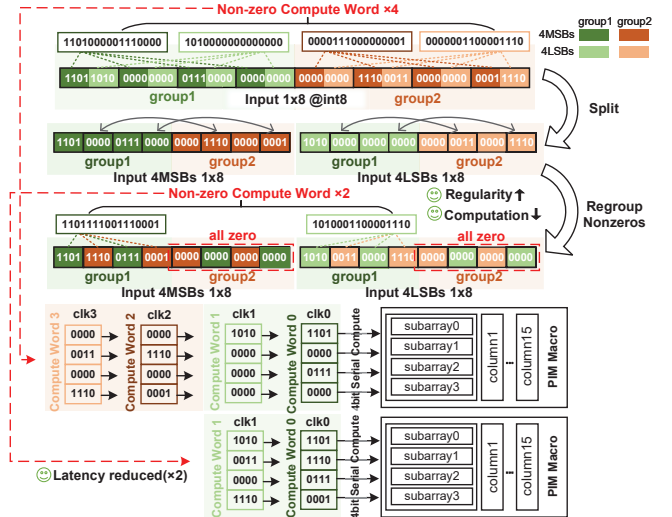


Fig. 5. The proposed bit-level non-zero gathering method for DPIM.

manage sparse data. As illustrated in Table III, among the two matrices involved in the combination stage, weight matrix W has very low sparsity and can be treated as dense, whereas input X displays significantly higher sparsity. Therefore, a weight-stationary DPIM can directly utilize W without additional optimization. The primary focus of optimization efforts should be on how to efficiently exploit the sparsity of X .

This work introduces a channel-independent digital PIM (DPIM) macro for sparse combination computations. Conven-

tional DPIMs are constrained by their reliance on a single subarray address signal, limiting them to selecting weights only from the same position within each subarray. Our DPIM macro, however, allows each input channel to have its unique subarray address signal. This enables concurrent feeding of data from multiple input channels into the DPIM macro for multiplication with different weights stored at various addresses within the subarrays. This design provides an opportunity to leverage sparsity by exchanging input data within the same input channel across different compute words. Different input channels can independently select weights from distinct subarray addresses, ensuring computational accuracy after data exchange. For clarity, we use the term “compute word” to describe the input data that a DPIM macro can process within one clock cycle, analogous to the “word” in SRAM, which denotes the data that can be written or read in a single clock cycle. Furthermore, our DPIM macro employs a 4-bit serial computing approach instead of the conventional 1-bit serial computing, significantly boosting its computing capability.

The bit-level non-zero (NZ) gathering method we propose is illustrated in Fig. 5. The principle of this method involves exchanging data among different compute words within the same input channel. This process gathers non-zero values into specific compute words, thereby increasing the number of all-zero compute words that can be bypassed during computation. It is important to note that compute words composed of different bits from the same data cannot be exchanged, as this would disrupt the proper functioning of the accumulator. Fig. 5 illustrates this method using a DPIM macro with a 4×4 compute word as an example. Before optimization, all four compute words need to be computed. However, after applying NZ gathering, only two compute words remain for processing. While element-level NZ gathering is effective, Table III demonstrates that higher bit-level sparsity makes bit-level NZ gathering even more advantageous, as will be further evidenced in the evaluation results.

C. Load-Balanced Mapping of Subgraphs onto L2D Blocks

In the subgraph phase, the workload is allocated to the L2D blocks at the subgraph granularity. The significant size differences among subgraphs, as presented in Fig. 3, can lead to an imbalanced workload across blocks during parallel computation. To address this issue, we introduce a balanced mapping strategy, as shown in Algorithm 1. It is based on the assumption that the workload of a subgraph generally correlates positively with its vertex count, although the irregular sparsity of the subgraph also plays a role. To estimate the workload of a subgraph, we consider its vertex count and employ a greedy algorithm for subgraph assignment. Initially, we sort the subgraphs in descending order based on their vertex counts. Subsequently, we sequentially assign each subgraph to a target L2D block. The target block is determined based on the number of tasks already assigned to each block. The block with the fewest tasks is the target block. After each subgraph assignment, the record of the block with the fewest

Algorithm 1: Load-Balanced Mapping of Subgraphs

Input: Subgraph Array $SubG_{array}$, Adjacency matrices array A_{array} , L2D Block Array $Block_{array}$, Graph Array G_{array}

Output: Block Workload Array BW_{array}

```

1 for each graph  $g \in G_{array}$  do
2   Update  $SubG_{array}$ ,  $A_{array}$ 
3   for each subgraph  $subg \in SubG_{array}$  do
4      $Size[subg] = \text{Number of rows in } A_{array}[subg]$ 
5   end
6   Sort  $SubG_{array}$  by  $Size$  in descending order
7    $Minblock$ : the block with the fewest allocated workloads
8   for each subgraph  $subg \in SubG_{array}$  do
9     for each block  $b \in Block_{array}$  do
10      if  $BW_{array}[b] < BW_{array}[Minblock]$  then
11         $Minblock = b$ 
12      else
13        Continue
14      end
15    end
16     $BW_{array}[Minblock] =$ 
17       $BW_{array}[Minblock] + Size[subg]$ 
18 end

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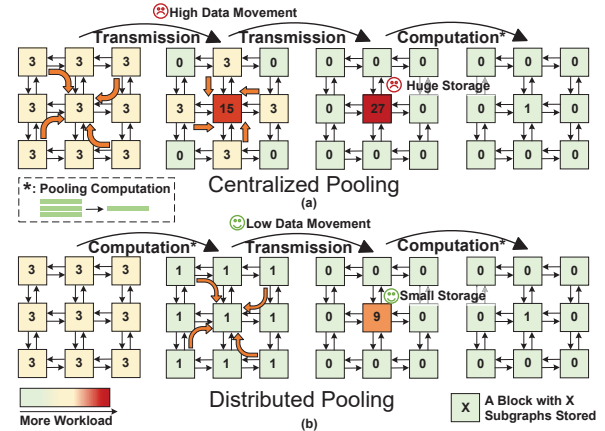


Fig. 6. (a) Centralized global pooling lead to massive data transfer and imbalanced computation. (b) The proposed distributed pooling method reduces the inter-block data transfer and alleviates workload imbalance.

tasks is updated, ensuring next subgraph to be assigned in a load-balanced manner.

D. Distributed Global Pooling Approach

Although pooling is often overlooked, global pooling in subgraph GNNs involves significant inter-block data movement, making its optimization crucial. During the subgraph phase, subgraphs are distributed to different L2D blocks. Global pooling requires aggregating computational data from all subgraphs. The most straightforward approach is to use NoC to transmit all subgraph data to a central block, which then performs the final pooling. However, this approach incurs an $O(n)$ data transmission cost through the NoC, where n is the number of subgraphs. The Table II demonstrates that the

number of subgraphs is exceptionally large and continues to increase with the addition of hops. Furthermore, as illustrated in the Fig. 6(a), this method concentrates all computational loads on the central block, resulting in a highly unbalanced load distribution.

Considering the characteristics of pooling, local pooling can be performed within a block first, followed by global pooling. After local pooling, the data volume of each block is reduced to that of a single subgraph. Consequently, the total amount of data that needs to be transferred shifts from being proportional to number of subgraphs to being proportional to number of blocks, thereby significantly mitigating load imbalance and reducing data movement overhead, as shown in Fig. 6(b).

IV. EVALUATION

A. Experimental Setup

Architecture Configuration. The specification of 3D-SubG is shown in Table IV, which features a configuration of 6×6 L2D blocks. Every logic block is equipped with eight PIM macros, each comprising a 1024×64 -bit SRAM cell array. These SRAM cells are organized into an 8×16 subarray structure, capable of processing 8×16 INT8-by-INT4 operations every two clock cycles. Additionally, each logic block incorporates a total of 276 kB ping-pong SRAM buffers. The NoC on logic die employs a mesh topology with a 64-bit flit width. The DRAM specifications are based on previous research [24] and appropriately scaled to align with this work. The DRAM blocks are arranged in a 6×6 configuration, mirroring the layout of logic blocks. Each DRAM block has a capacity of 16 MB and provides a die-to-die bandwidth of 4.8 GB/s.

Hardware Implementation. The DPIM macro on logic die is evaluated using Cadence Virtuoso for area and power consumption. The on-chip SRAM is generated with ARM Artisan SRAM Compiler, which also supplies data on area and power. The remaining digital components are synthesized using Cadence Genus. The logic die is synthesized using commercial 22nm process, operating at clock frequency of 200 MHz and voltage of 0.8V. The energy cost of DRAM access is estimated as 0.88 pJ/bit [25]. The energy cost of NoC is estimated as 1.1 pJ/bit/hop [27]. Moreover, a C++ simulator is developed to assess the performance, data transfer rates, and utilization of the overall 3D-SubG system.

Benchmarks and Datasets. To comprehensively evaluate 3D-SubG, we deployed and evaluated the Nested GNN (NGNN) [14] on four widely-used datasets in the subgraph GNN domain: BZR [28], MUTAG [29], ENZYMES [30], and PROTEINS [31], all of which belong to TU datasets [32]. NGNN adheres to the general subgraph GNN structure. No specific optimizations were implemented, thereby enabling an unbiased evaluation of 3D-SubG’s compatibility with the general subgraph GNN framework. For the model configuration, we adopted the setup outlined in [14], utilizing NGNN with GCN as the base GNN, a hop value of 3, and a hidden dimension of 32. We trained the floating-point model and then quantized it, where the adjacency matrix A and weights

TABLE IV
SPECIFICATIONS OF LOGIC DIE AND DRAM DIE

Logic Die	Specification
Area	98.22 mm ²
Technology	22nm
Block	6×6 blocks
DPIM	12.8GOPS/macro (int8 mul int4)
SRAM Capacity	276kB + 64kB(DPIM) / block
NoC	mesh, 64-bit flit width
Frequency	200MHz
Voltage	0.8V

DRAM Die	Specification
Area	98.22 mm ² (DRAM 72 mm ² + Peri 26.22mm ²)
Technology	25nm
Capacity	16MB/block
Bandwidth	4.8GB/s / block
Frequency	150MHz
Voltage	1.1V

TABLE V
QUANTIZATION PRECISION TESTING

Dataset	Claimed in [14] (%)	Floating Point ¹ (%)	Quantized ¹ (%)	Accuracy Drop (%)
BZR	—	79.5 $\pm$ 3.9	79.0 $\pm$ 3.3	0.6
MUTAG	82.9 $\pm$ 11.1	81.1 $\pm$ 8.3	81.1 $\pm$ 8.3	0.0
ENZYMES	31.2 $\pm$ 6.7	34.2 $\pm$ 12.5	33.8 $\pm$ 12.1	1.3
PROTEINS	73.3 $\pm$ 4.0	71.8 $\pm$ 5.7	71.8 $\pm$ 5.7	0.0

¹ The training process employed the 10-fold cross-validation method.

W were quantized to INT4, while the graph representation matrix X and model outputs were quantized to INT8. We demonstrated that this quantization scheme has a negligible impact on model accuracy across all four datasets examined, as shown in Table V.

Baselines. To the best of our knowledge, 3D-SubG is the pioneering accelerator tailored for subgraph GNNs. For fairness, we refrain from comparing it with conventional GNN accelerators, whose target task is traditional GNNs. To validate the efficacy of the proposed techniques, we utilize an unoptimized variant of 3D-SubG as the benchmark for comparison. Lastly, we also conducted a comparative analysis of latency, power consumption, and area efficiency with an NVIDIA RTX 3090Ti utilizing PyTorch Geometric.

B. Evaluation Results

Efficiency Evaluation for Bit-Level Non-Zero Gathering. As in Fig. 7, bit-level NZ gathering achieves an average reduction of $2.5 \times$, $1.5 \times$, $1.53 \times$, and $1.93 \times$ compute words on BZR, MUTAG, ENZYMES, and PROTEINS, respectively, with the reduction directly proportional to DPIM’s computation time. Additionally, we compared bit-level versus element-level NZ gathering, observing reductions of $1.38 \times$, $1.08 \times$, $1.13 \times$, and $1.12 \times$ across the datasets. The technique’s effectiveness depends on data sparsity and distribution, with BZR showing the greatest improvement due to its highest sparsity as in Tabel III.

Efficiency Evaluation for Load-Balanced Subgraph Mapping. The benefits of load-balanced subgraph mapping are shown in Fig. 8. On the BZR, MUTAG, ENZYMES, and

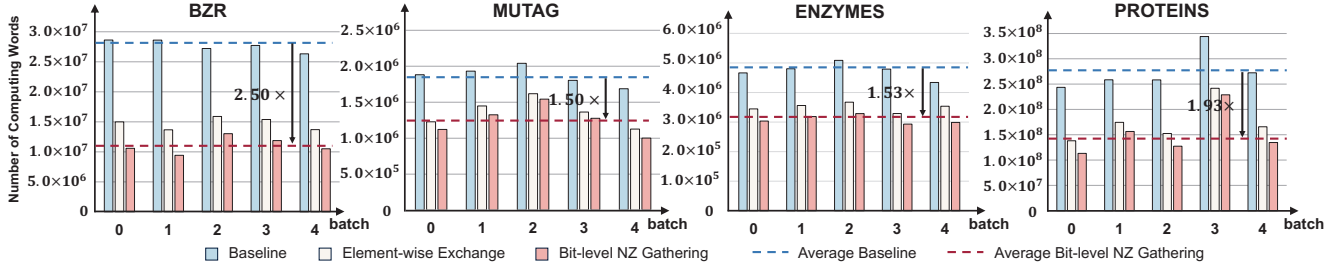


Fig. 7. Number of compute words for DPIM on four datasets.

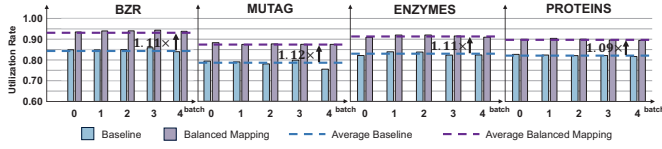


Fig. 8. Average utilization rate of L2D blocks in the subgraph phase.

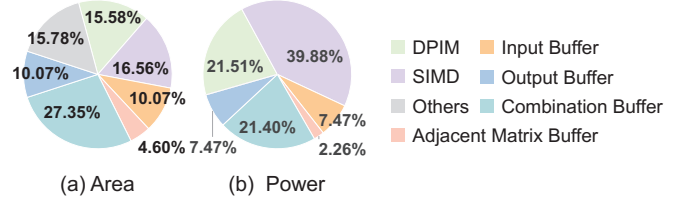


Fig. 10. Area and power breakdown of logic die.

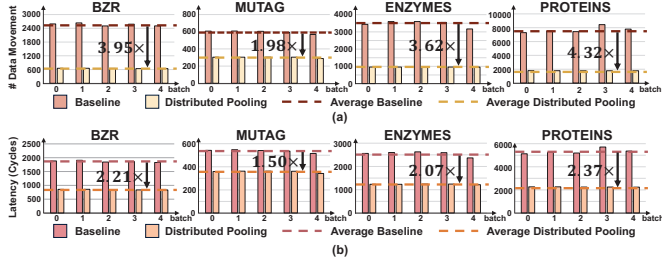


Fig. 9. (a) Amount of data transferred on NoC during the global phase; (b) The latency of global pooling.

PROTEINS datasets, this technique improved the L2D block utilization by 1.11 $\times$, 1.12 $\times$, 1.11 $\times$, and 1.09 $\times$, respectively, increasing the overall utilization from around 80% to approximately 90%.

Efficiency Evaluation for Distributed Global Pooling. Distributed global pooling theoretically diminishes the data transfer required for global pooling from $O(n)$ to $O(m)$, where n and m denote the number of subgraphs and L2D blocks, respectively. Experiments confirm this, indicating that on the BZR, MUTAG, ENZYMES, and PROTEINS datasets, distributed pooling attains reductions in inter-block data movement by 3.95 $\times$, 1.98 $\times$, 3.62 $\times$, and 4.32 $\times$, respectively, as shown in Fig. 9. By distributing the computational load across all blocks and markedly decreasing data transfer, the total latency of global pooling is also decreased, achieving reductions of 2.21 $\times$, 1.50 $\times$, 2.07 $\times$, and 2.37 $\times$ on four datasets.

Area and Power Overhead. The implementation results show that the total area of the logic die is 98.22mm², with a total power consumption of 4.17W. The area and power breakdowns are shown in Fig. 10.

Overall Performance. We compare 3D-SubG with RTX 3090Ti GPU using PyTorch Geometric, with results presented in Fig. 11. This comparison includes power consumption

related to die-to-die and NoC data transmission, as well as DRAM static power consumption. Across four datasets, 3D-SubG outperforms GPU in latency performance by 139.90 $\times$, 116.30 $\times$, 149.70 $\times$, and 178.53 $\times$, respectively. Simultaneously, it achieved significant reductions in power consumption by 6.39 $\times$, 10.38 $\times$, 8.20 $\times$, and 7.11 $\times$. On average, 3D-SubG exhibited 146.11 $\times$ improvement in performance, 1171.80 $\times$ increase in energy efficiency, and 934.18 $\times$ enhancement in area efficiency compared to RTX 3090Ti GPU.

V. CONCLUSION

We develop a 3D stacked accelerator, named 3D-SubG, tailored for subgraph GNNs. 3D-SubG is built upon a processing-near-DRAM architecture enabled by hybrid bonding packaging to achieve parallel memory accesses, where the DRAM die is 3D stacked with logic die equipped with PIM macros. For the subgraph phase and global phase in subgraph GNNs, we have proposed load-balanced subgraph mapping and distributed global pooling strategies, respectively. To efficiently manage sparse computations to benefit PIM, we introduced a bit-level non-zero gathering method. On average, 3D-SubG outperforms RTX 3090Ti GPU by 146.11 $\times$ in performance, 934.18 $\times$ in area efficiency, and 1171.80 $\times$ in energy efficiency.

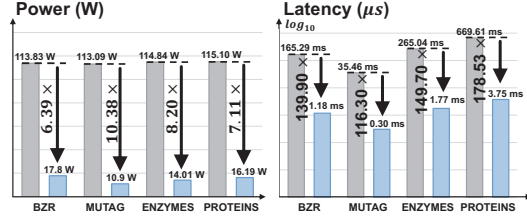


Fig. 11. Comparison results of 3D-SubG with RTX 3090Ti GPU.

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The proposed design has two modes: *electron* and *Photon*. The STT-TLJ is used on the left hand side whose default state is anti-parallel and two STT-TRT1 or the top one and RT2 or the bottom one with a default state of parallel have been used on the right hand side. The critical parameters of transistors and Ts are reported in Section . The uniaxiality of the proposed design in *electron* and *Photon* mode is explained in the following subsections.

The stochastic Landau-Lifshitz equation which governs the dynamic characteristics of magnetization of STT-T is shown in (1). The recession damping and spin transfer torque are represented by the first, second and third terms on the right hand side of (1). Also the membrane voltage $u(t)$ of a LFP neuron implemented by the capacitance C , the resistance R , $\tau_m = RC$) and the current source $I(t)$ is calculated using (2). The reset operation is not described in this equation. By combining (1) and (2) it can be concluded that by considering recession and damping terms as the $-\frac{u(t)}{\tau_m}$ term and spin transfer term as $\frac{J(t)}{c}$, the membrane potential can be imitated by magnetization of the free layer of the STT-T.

$$\frac{du}{dt} = -\frac{u(t)}{\tau_m} + \frac{J(t)}{C} \quad 2$$

Spiking neural networks (SNNs) are a promising alternative to deep neural networks (DNNs). SNNs are event-driven networks in which the data is encoded into spikes. Data encoding and processing alongside event-driven make SNNs more energy and hardware efficient compared to DNNs. Accordingly, SNNs are a suitable choice for energy-constrained applications such as IoT [1]. Due to the allocation of SNNs in processing data, they have access to the private and sometimes confidential information and data of the user. Accordingly, the security of these networks is of great importance.

Physically unclonable functions (PUFs) are a class of circuits or security primitives. They can be used for many applications such as device authentication, embedded licensing, device-specific cryptography, key generation, and anti-counterfeiting [2]. These circuits have been widely used in many applications to enhance security [3] and [4], the authors proposed a neuron PUF for spiking neural networks. In these networks, the reset duty cycle and periodicity of spiking neurons and their dependency on process variations have been used as the source of entropy, and additional circuits are needed to generate the response of PUF in order to eliminate the need for these additional circuits generate the response by the neuron itself, and unitary neuron and PUF in this paper is a magnetic tunnel junction (MTJ)-based leaky integrate-and-fire (LIF) spiking neuron, as been proposed, unlike the proposed design in [3] and [4], process variation of T has been used as the source of entropy. The proposed design can work as both a neuron and PUF and does not require any auxiliary circuits to generate the response of PUF and the response is generated by the neuron itself.

The proposed design is shown in Fig. 1. It has been used in the structure of the proposed design. It consists of two ferromagnetic layers separated by a thin oxide barrier. The magnetic orientation of one of these layers is fixed, i.e., layer and the other one is modified. In free layer, the magnetic orientation of the free layer is the same as opposite to the fixed layer. It is in parallel/anti-parallel mode and it shows relatively high resistance.

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ter reducing the output the RST signal will be set to 1 to change the state of the STs to their default state. The corresponding paths for each of these stages have been shown in Fig. 1.

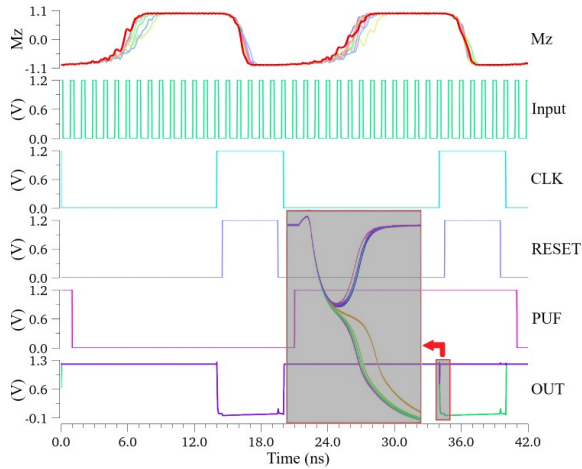


Fig. 2. Output of 10 Monte Carlo simulations of the proposed neuron PUF.

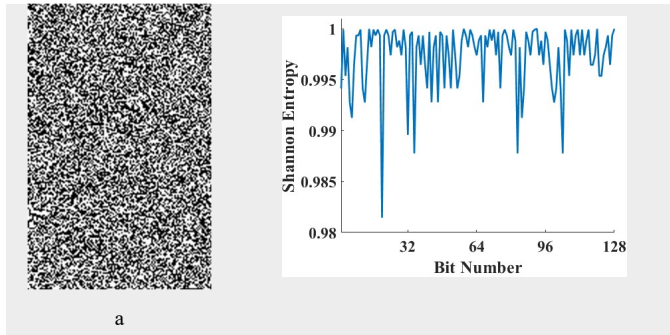


Fig. 3. 200 instances of 128-bit PUF response using the proposed design: a) Grayscale bitmap, b) Shannon entropy of each bit of the response.

B. PUF mode functionality

During PUF mode, first the state of the LUT is set to parallel when the L signal is 0. When the L signal rises from 0 to 1, the RST2 is disconnected and the alternative path containing two STs transistors controlled by RESET and PUF signal is connected to the output of RST1. In this case, RST1 and LUT are in parallel state and they are compared to each other by PUF. Accordingly, the output of the proposed neuron PUF is random and depends on the process variations. After reducing the output, the reset operation will be the same as the neuron mode.

S. LUT RSTLS

In this paper, SPICE simulation using Advanced Spectre has been used for the simulations. The 6 nm SPICE model and the T-model presented in [1] have been used for the simulations. The gate length and width of both S and P MOS transistors have been set to 60 nm and 120 nm. Also, the surface oxide barrier thickness and free layer thickness of the STs have been set to 0 nm, 0.8 nm, and 2 nm.

Fig. 2 shows the output of 10 Monte Carlo simulations of the proposed design. From 0 ns to 21 ns, the proposed design is in the neuron mode, and after that, it is in the PUF mode. The waveform labeled as 'Mz' in Fig. 2 shows the magnetic direction of the LUT: 1 for anti-parallel and 0 for parallel. As shown in Fig. 2, when the proposed design is in neuron mode, all the outputs of different instances are equal to each other. 14 ns to 20 ns, and when it is in PUF

mode, due to the process variation, the outputs of different instances are different.

In order to investigate the performance of the proposed design as a PUF, 200 Monte Carlo simulations of 128-bit PUF have been performed by instantiating 200 instances of the proposed design. The grayscale bitmap of this simulation is shown in Fig. 3(a). Uniformity and Shannon entropy as an indicator of randomness have been used as performance metrics. Uniformity indicates how different the PUF responses of different instances are. Uniformity indicates the ratio of ones in response to the length of the response. The ideal value for both of these metrics is 0.5. On the other hand, Shannon entropy indicates the randomness of the PUF. With the ideal value of 1, 100%. The Shannon entropy for each of the responses is shown in Fig. 3(b). The values of these metrics for the proposed design are shown in Table 1. The values of uniformity and uniformity of the proposed design are 4.66% and 0.04%, respectively, which are close to their ideal values. The reported value of uniformity for [4] and [4] are 4.4% and 4.4%, which both have higher differences with the ideal value compared to the proposed design. The uniformity metric has been only reported in [4], which is 48.42%, which has a higher difference with the ideal value compared to the proposed design. Also, the maximum, mean, minimum, and standard deviation (STD) of the Shannon entropy of each bit of response are 1.0, 0.98, 0.98, and 0.001, which are close to the ideal value.

TABLE 1. Performance metrics of the proposed design in PUF mode.

Metric	Uniformity	Uniformity	Shannon entropy			
			Mean	Min	Max	STD
Proposed design	4.66	0.04	1.0	0.98	0.98	0.001
[4]	4.4	48.42				
[4]	4.4					

stands for not available

L. S

In this paper, an LFSR-based LFSR-based neuron PUF has been proposed. The proposed design has two modes: neuron and PUF mode. In the neuron mode, the dynamic characteristic of the magnetization of the free layer of the STT-T has been utilized to imitate the functionality of a LFSR neuron. This design can be utilized as a PUF in PUF mode without any additional circuits. The PUF mode of the proposed design can be used for security applications like authentication, licensing, and anti-counterfeiting applications. Monte Carlo simulations have been performed to evaluate the performance of the proposed design. Results show that the uniformity, uniformity, and Shannon entropy randomness metric of the proposed design are 4.66%, 0.04%, and 0.98%, mean value, respectively, which are close to their ideal values.

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